Paper 1 · the whole draft

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Abstract

To be written last.

1 · Introduction

Why does space have three dimensions? Ehrenfest (1918, 1920) turned the question into physics. He asked what in the laws of physics would change with the number of dimensions, and found, among other things, that under the inverse-power force Gauss's law gives in D dimensions, no planetary orbit is stable for $D > 3$. Tangherlini (1963) carried the argument into general relativity and into quantum mechanics: the hydrogen atom with Gauss's potential has no stable states above three dimensions. The usual conclusion is that a world with more than three large dimensions has no atoms. Callender (2005) points out what that conclusion leans on, that the laws carry over to other dimensions unchanged.

They needn't. The literature on the hydrogen atom in D dimensions (Nieto 1979; Al-Jaber 1998) and on dimensional scaling (Herschbach, Avery, and Goscinski 1993; Loeser and Herschbach 1986a, 1986b; Ghosh, Kais, and Herschbach 2020) keeps the potential at $1/r$ in every D, mostly as a convention that keeps the problem solvable. With it, hydrogen has a Bohr radius in any dimension. Négadi and Kibler (1996) used the D-dimensional hydrogen atom to extend Madelung's filling rule (Madelung 1936) to any dimension and worked it out for two. Applied to four, their rule gives rows of 2, 10, 10, 28, 28, 60. Pyykkö and Zhao (1991) solved the atoms of a two-dimensional world self-consistently. To our knowledge no one has solved the atoms of a four-dimensional one, nor asked what the choice of $1/r$ itself does to them.

This paper does both. Part I treats the law as a choice. It shows why one has to be made (section 2), why $1/r$ exactly (section 3), and what it costs in four dimensions (section 4). Part II solves every neutral atom to $Z = 140$ under it (sections 5–8). It checks the same solver against our own table (section 6). It finds that four-dimensional space breaks Hund's first rule, which the solver had assumed, and corrects for it (section 7), and it gives the table (section 8). Part III asks which of the table's features the law decides. It solves the table a second time with the shell theorem forced back on (section 9), and follows the law into partial screening (section 10) and into the pull of neutral atoms (section 11). Section 12 states the limitations; section 13 concludes.

Every number in the text is recomputed from the code and its baked data each time anything changes, and is checked against a ledger of 32 claims. The code, the data and the paper's own making are public at four.mino.mobi/papers.

Notation

Atomic units throughout: $\hbar = m_e = e = 1$, and the law's constant is 1, so two charges q_1 and q_2 a distance r apart have the energy $q_1 q_2 / r$ in hartree with r in bohr. "Ours" is our own three-dimensional world. The subshell letters s, p, d, f (upright) are $l = 0, 1, 2, 3$, and in four dimensions a subshell of angular momentum l holds $2(l + 1)^2$ electrons. Bold letters are vectors.

symbol	meaning	from
D	the number of dimensions of space: 3 in ours, 4 here	§2
r	distance from the nucleus, or between two charges	§2

symbol	meaning	from
$x, y; x_i$	points of D-dimensional space; the coordinates of x	§2.1
$V(r)$	the potential energy of one electron	§2.1
a	the strength of Gauss's pull $-a/r^2$ in four dimensions	§2.1
H, ψ	a one-electron Hamiltonian and its wavefunction	§2.1
∇, ∇^2	gradient and Laplacian in D dimensions	§2.1
λ	a scale factor, $x \to \lambda x$	§2.1
σ	the power r^σ of a wavefunction close to the nucleus	§2.1
ε	a one-electron (orbital) energy, in hartree	§2.1
E	a total energy; **E** (bold) is the electric field	§2.1
r_0	the inner end of a calculation's radial grid	§2.1
p, **p**	momentum	§2.2
$\hbar, m_e$	Planck's constant over 2π and the electron's mass (both 1 in atomic units)	§2.2
η	the exponent of a trial law $V = -1/r^\eta$ ($\eta = 1$ is the pinned law, $\eta = D - 2$ Gauss's)	§3.1
Z	the nuclear charge, the element's number	§3.1
L_{ij}, **A**	angular momentum in the plane ij; the Runge–Lenz vector	§3.1
k	wavenumber (Fourier space); k_F is the Fermi wavenumber	§3.1
n, l	the principal and angular quantum numbers	§3.1
s	the radius of a spherical shell of charge	§4.2
t	$\min(r, s)/\max(r, s)$, the ratio of the two radii	§4.2
$\kappa(t)$	the shell kernel: a shell's potential over the shell theorem's, $\kappa = 1$ in ours	§4.2
R	the distance from an atom to an outside charge, or between two atoms	§4.2
Q	an atom's $\sum \langle r^2 \rangle$ over its electrons; Q_A, Q_B for atoms A and B	§4.2
φ	an electric potential	§4.3
ω, c	angular frequency; the speed of light	§4.3
ρ	a density: of charge in §4.3, of electrons in an atom from §5	§4.3
ε_0, μ_0	the vacuum's permittivity and permeability	§4.3
ℓ	the lens vacuum's length: permittivity $\varepsilon_0\ \ell\ k$, permeability $\mu_0 / \ell\ k$	§4.3
β	the exponent of the nonlinear vacuum, $\nabla \cdot (\lvert\mathbf{E}\rvert^{\beta-2}\mathbf{E}) = \rho$	§4.3
E, **D**, **H**	electric field, displacement, magnetic field	§4.3
N	a number of electrons, or of atoms	§4.5
$u(r)$	the radial function: $\psi = r^{-(D-1)/2}\, u(r) Y$ with Y a harmonic of degree l	§5
L	$l + (D - 3)/2$, the angular momentum the radial equation sees	§5
ε_x, v_x, A_D	exchange energy per electron, exchange potential, and the exchange constant: $\varepsilon_x = -A_D \rho^{1/D}$	§5
h	the grid's step in $\ln r$	§5

symbol	meaning	from
S, M_S	an open subshell's total spin and its projection	§7
F^n	the radial (Slater) integrals of the repulsion within a subshell, $n = 0, 2, 4, \ldots$	§7.3
C_n	the Gegenbauer polynomial $C_n^{(1)}$, the 3-sphere's analogue of Legendre's P_n	§7.3
γ	the angle between two electrons, seen from the nucleus	§7.3
a_n	$\langle C_n(\cos\gamma)\rangle$ over a term, its share of F^n	§7.3
θ	the polar angle on a sphere	App. A
K, E (upright)	complete elliptic integrals of the first and second kind	App. A
P_n	the Legendre polynomial	App. A
Ω_D	the volume of the unit ball in D dimensions ($\pi^2/2$ for $D = 4$)	App. B

Part I · The law

2 · Why a law has to be chosen

Ask what the atoms are in a world with four dimensions of space and there is no answer yet, because the question leaves out the law between charges. In our world that law isn't a free choice. Gauss's law, which is what a local, linear field theory of charge gives, says the field of a point charge spreads over the sphere around it. The sphere's area grows as r^{D-1}, so the field falls as $r^{-(D-1)}$ and the potential as $r^{-(D-2)}$. In three dimensions that is $1/r$. In four it is $1/r^2$, and with $1/r^2$ there are no atoms.

2.1 Gauss's law leaves no atom. One electron in the pull $V = -\alpha/r^2$ has the Hamiltonian $H = -\frac{1}{2}\nabla^2 - \alpha/r^2$, and nothing in it is a length. Stretch a wavefunction, $\psi(x) \to \psi(\lambda x)$, and both terms scale by λ^2. So if there were a bound state of energy $E < 0$ there would be one at $\lambda^2 E$ for every λ: a lowest level, and with it a size for the atom, is impossible. Either nothing binds or the levels run down without end. Which of the two happens is decided at the origin. Close in, an s wavefunction goes as r^σ with

$$\sigma(\sigma + D - 2) + 2\alpha = 0, \qquad \sigma = -1 \pm \sqrt{1 - 2\alpha} \quad (D = 4).$$

For $\alpha \le \frac{1}{2}$ the roots are real, and Hardy's inequality (Barbatis 2024)

$$\int |\nabla\psi|^2 \;\ge\; \left(\frac{D-2}{2}\right)^2 \int \frac{|\psi|^2}{r^2} \;=\; \int \frac{|\psi|^2}{r^2} \quad (D = 4)$$

says the kinetic energy $\frac{1}{2}\int|\nabla\psi|^2$ always outweighs the pull: $H \ge 0$, and nothing binds. For $\alpha > \frac{1}{2}$ the roots are complex and the wavefunction near the origin is $r^{-1}\cos(\sqrt{2\alpha - 1}\,\ln r + \delta)$. It changes sign infinitely often on the way in, and every node below a level means another level beneath it, so there is no lowest one: the electron falls to the centre (Case 1950; Landau and Lifshitz 1977, sec. 35).

A calculation shows both. Our one-electron solver (`laws.js`, appendix D) integrates the radial equation of section 5 by Numerov's method on a logarithmic grid that stops at an inner radius r_0, and finds each level by bisecting on the number of nodes. For $\alpha = 0.45$ it finds no bound level on any grid. For $\alpha = 0.7$ the lowest level is -5.87×10^3, -5.87×10^5 and -5.87×10^7 hartree with $r_0 = 10^{-3}$, 10^{-4} and 10^{-5} bohr. It grows as $1/r_0^2$ ($\varepsilon r_0^2 = -0.00587, -0.00587$), set by where the calculation stops rather than by the electron (figure 1a). Either way there is no Bohr radius, no size an atom could settle at. Ehrenfest made the classical version of this argument (Ehrenfest 1918): under Gauss's law in four dimensions no planetary orbit is stable either.

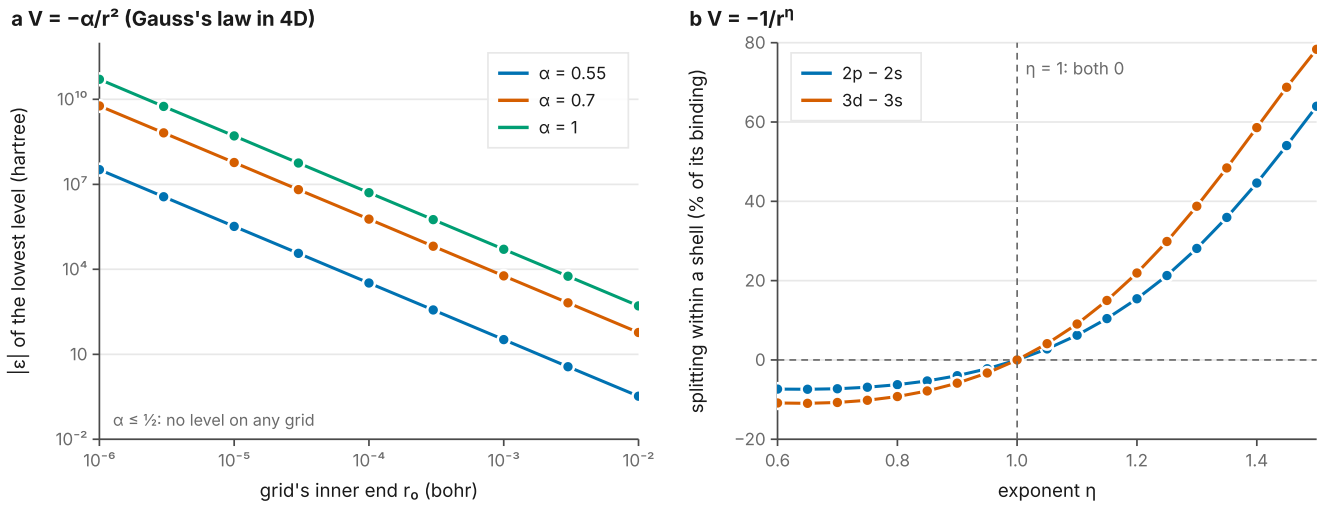


Figure 1. The choice of law. (a) Gauss's law in four dimensions gives a potential $-\alpha/r^2$. One electron in it, solved on grids whose inner end r_0 is moved in: for every α above ½ the lowest level scales as $1/r_0^2$, set by where the calculation stops rather than by the electron (the fall to the centre); at or below ½ there is no level on any grid (Hardy's inequality). Either way there is no Bohr radius and no atom. (b) With a pull $-1/r^\eta$ instead, the splitting between 2p and 2s (and 3d and 3s) as a fraction of the shell's binding vanishes only at $\eta = 1$, to 10^{-11}: the hidden SO(5) symmetry of 1/r, which no other exponent has (section 3.1). Shells of $2(l+1)^2$, and the rows of figure 2, need exactly 1/r.

2.2 The ways out, and what each costs. Something has to give. The squeeze that resists the pull costs $\hbar^2/2m_e r^2$, because the electron's energy grows as the square of its momentum p. The pull goes as $1/r^2$ because of Gauss. Change either and a length comes back. One way is to change the electron: an energy growing as p^3 or p^4 outgrows a $1/r^2$ pull close in, so atoms bind at every strength. It keeps Gauss's law, and with it the shell theorem and the Faraday cage. But it gives up Galilean relativity for all matter: a moving laboratory and a still one see the same physics only if energy is quadratic in momentum. Another is a small fourth dimension, the way extra dimensions could hide in ours. But atoms larger than it are three-dimensional atoms and smaller ones fall again, so it doesn't give four-dimensional chemistry. The third is to change the law: keep the electron, keep four large dimensions, and make the potential between charges fall as $1/r$. This universe takes the third, and the rest of part I says why $1/r$ and what it costs. The choice between the first and the third is a judgement, stated as one: the electron route keeps our Faraday cages, the law route keeps our mechanics.

3 · Why 1/r, exactly

3.1 Only 1/r keeps a shell together. Any pull $V = -1/r^\eta$ with $0 < \eta < 2$ binds, and has a length of its own. The squeeze $\hbar^2/2m_e r^2$ beats the pull close in, the pull beats it far out, and they balance at a size that scales as $(\hbar^2/m_e)^{1/(2-\eta)}$. So $\eta = 1.5$ would give atoms with a size, and so would $\eta = 0.8$. What singles out $\eta = 1$ is a symmetry that no other exponent has.

Classically, under $1/r$ every bound orbit is a closed ellipse. By Bertrand's theorem only $1/r$ and r^2 do that, and r^2 confines rather than falling off. An orbit lies in a plane in any number of dimensions, so this holds in four. A closed ellipse keeps a fixed direction, its long axis. So the motion conserves a vector besides the angular momentum, the Runge–Lenz vector $A_i = \sum_j L_{ij}\, p_j - Z x_i/r$, where $L_{ij} = x_i p_j - x_j p_i$ is the angular momentum in the plane ij. Under any other exponent the ellipse precesses, its axis turns, and **A** isn't conserved.

In quantum mechanics the rotations of D-dimensional space, SO(D), together with the D components of **A** generate the rotations of a space with one dimension more, SO(D + 1). Fock found this by carrying momentum space onto a sphere one dimension up (Fock 1935), and Bander and Itzykson worked out the group theory (Bander and Itzykson 1966). Why it happens only for $1/r$ can be put in one line. The Schrödinger equation in momentum space contains the potential's Fourier

transform. For $1/r^{\eta}$ in D dimensions that is $1/k^{D-\eta}$, which for $\eta = 1$ is $1/k^{D-1}$. Carried onto the sphere, $1/k^{D-1}$ becomes, up to factors the projection itself supplies, Gauss's potential of a point charge in $D + 1$ dimensions, and the natural functions of that are the sphere's own harmonics. For any other η the transform carries over to something else, and the larger symmetry is lost.

The symmetry does the work. States that the larger rotations carry into one another must have the same energy. A level of hydrogen is the set of degree-$(n-1)$ harmonics on that sphere, and the ordinary rotations split this set into $l = 0, 1, \ldots, n-1$. So every l below n shares the energy, which in four dimensions is $-Z^2/2(n+\frac{1}{2})^2$. With $(l+1)^2$ orbitals to each l, shell n holds $\sum_{l<n} 2(l+1)^2$ electrons: 2, 10, 28, 60. That degeneracy is what makes a shell, a group of levels with a gap above it.

Without the symmetry nothing holds the l together. On the same solver, 2p sits −6.2 % from 2s at $\eta = 0.8$, 5×10^{-10} % at $\eta = 1$, +15.4 % at $\eta = 1.2$ and +64.0 % at $\eta = 1.5$ (as a fraction of the shell's binding; 3d against 3s goes the same way, +78.3 % at $\eta = 1.5$; figure 1b). Below 1 the electron with more angular momentum is the more bound, above it the less. So under $\eta = 1.5$ a one-electron atom's 2p is bound little more than a third as hard as its 2s, and each l is a level of its own. A table would still have rows, since many electrons split the l in ours too. But the rows would be set by how the exponent treats electrons that come near the nucleus, and would have to be found again for every η. The generalized Madelung rule, which starts from hydrogen's degeneracy, wouldn't apply. Under $1/r$ the rows come from counting harmonics, and that is what lets part III tell the geometry's share of the table from the law's.

3.2 The convention it agrees with. The literature on hydrogen in D dimensions (Nieto 1979; Al-Jaber 1998) and on dimensional scaling (Herschbach, Avery, and Goscinski 1993) takes $1/r$ in every D, mostly as a convention that keeps the problem solvable. Négadi and Kibler's generalized Madelung rule (1996), which gives the four-dimensional rows when it is applied to $D = 4$, builds on the same D-dimensional hydrogen atom. Section 3.1 is why that convention is more than one: it is the only power law under which the question "what are the shells?" has the answer the rule needs.

4 · What 1/r costs in four dimensions

4.1 It isn't harmonic. In three dimensions $\nabla^2(1/r) = 0$ away from the charge, and that one fact is Gauss's law. In D dimensions $\nabla^2 r^{-\eta} = \eta(\eta + 2 - D)\, r^{-\eta-2}$, which vanishes only for Gauss's own $\eta = D - 2$. In four,

$$\nabla^2 \frac{1}{r} = -\frac{1}{r^3} \qquad (r \neq 0),$$

which the solver's finite differences reproduce (−1.00000 at $r = 1$, −0.12500 at $r = 2$). By the divergence theorem the flux of the field through a sphere round a charge is the integral of $-\nabla^2(1/r)$ over the ball inside it. The integrand is $1/r^3$ and the ball's volume element $2\pi^2 r^3\, dr$, so the flux grows linearly with the sphere's radius, as if empty space were charged with a density $\propto 1/r^3$. There is no Gauss's law for it.

4.2 No shell theorem, no Faraday cage. A thin spherical shell of charge with radius s, felt at radius r, gives $\kappa(t)$/ max (r, s), with $t =$ min (r, s)/ max (r, s) and κ the law's $1/|x - y|$ averaged over the shell (section 5, appendix A). In three dimensions $\kappa = 1$, the shell theorem, and the reason is the mean-value property: a function with zero Laplacian averages, over any sphere, to its value at the centre, and $1/|x - y|$ is such a function of y. In four dimensions $\nabla^2(1/r) < 0$, and a function whose Laplacian is negative averages to less than its value at the centre. So $\kappa < 1$: it falls from 1 at the centre to $\kappa(1) = 8/3\pi = 0.848826$ at the shell (figure A1). That has three consequences. A cloud of charge never acts as if it sat at its centre. A hollow conductor's centre sits at $3\pi/8 = 1.178097$ of its wall's potential, and a charge inside is pushed toward the wall. And a neutral atom is felt from outside, as $-Q/8R^3$ at a distance R, where $Q = \sum \langle r^2 \rangle$ over its electrons (section 11). Everything distinctive in part III comes from here.

4.3 Which field theory gives 1/r. A potential is what a field theory's static equation gives for a point charge, and the equation is simplest in Fourier space, where each pair of derivatives becomes a factor k^2 of the wavenumber k. Maxwell's statics give a point charge the potential $\varphi \propto 1/k^2$, and that transforms back to $1/r^{D-2}$ in space, so $1/r^2$ in four dimensions. A potential $1/r^\eta$ in D dimensions is the transform of $1/k^{D-\eta}$, so the pinned $1/r$ needs $1/k^3$. There are five ways to get it (the site's force chapter, four.mino.mobi/atom/force.html, works through each). Four fail outright. The third survives with a flaw that can be removed, and it is the one this paper takes.

1. *A local, relativistic field:* impossible. A local field equation is a polynomial in k^2, a whole number of pairs of derivatives, and $k^3 = (k^2)^{3/2}$ isn't one.
2. *Relativistic but non-local:* the potential obeys $(k^2 - \omega^2/c^2)^{3/2}\,\varphi \propto \rho$, Maxwell's wave operator raised to the power 3/2, which in space and time is an integral over all of both. The field's scaling dimension is then 1 in five-dimensional spacetime. Positive probabilities need at least 1.5 (the unitarity bound, where an ordinary free field sits), so the theory has states of negative probability.
3. *A vacuum whose permittivity grows with wavenumber,* $\varepsilon_0\,\ell\,k$ with ℓ a length. The static equation becomes $\varepsilon_0\,\ell\,k\cdot k^2\varphi = \rho$, which is $1/k^3$, the pinned $1/r$. With the permeability left at μ_0, light obeys $k^2 = \ell\,k\,\omega^2/c^2$, so $\omega = c\sqrt{k/\ell}$. It disperses like deep-water waves, and there is no speed of light. This is the route we take, and the flaw is removed below.
4. *A nonlinear vacuum,* $\nabla\cdot(|\mathbf{E}|^{\beta-2}\mathbf{E}) = \rho$. It keeps a Gauss's law, for the flux of $|\mathbf{E}|^{\beta-2}\mathbf{E}$ instead of $\mathbf{E}$. A point charge then has $|\mathbf{E}|^{\beta-1}r^{D-1}$ constant, and a $1/r$ potential ($|\mathbf{E}| \propto 1/r^2$) needs $\beta = (D+1)/2 = 2.5$. But fields no longer add: the field of two charges isn't the sum of each one's.
5. *A small fourth dimension:* $1/r$ far away, but then atoms are three-dimensional (section 2.2).

Route 1 doesn't exist, route 2 has states of negative probability, route 4 gives up fields that add, and route 5 gives back three-dimensional atoms. That leaves route 3. The permittivity fixes the statics, and the statics are all that the pinned law asks of it. The permeability is still free, and it decides only how fields move. Left at μ_0 it gives the dispersive light above. We choose $\mu_0/\ell\,k$, and call the result the **lens vacuum**. The product of permittivity and permeability is then $\varepsilon_0\mu_0$ at every wavenumber, so light keeps the one speed c. The fields $\mathbf{D}/\varepsilon_0$ and $\mu_0\mathbf{H}$ obey Maxwell's equations of empty four-dimensional space exactly, so light is ordinary four-dimensional light at every wavelength, and the energy is never negative. What pushes a charge is $\mathbf{E} = (\mathbf{D}/\varepsilon_0)/\ell\,k$, that light seen through a lens. Dividing by k in Fourier space is, in space, spreading over a kernel $1/r^3$ (the transform of $1/k$ in four dimensions), so $\mathbf{E}$ at a point is a blur of $\mathbf{D}$ over all of space. Its statics are $1/\ell\,k^3$, the pinned $1/r$. The price is relativity, for the force between charges only. The blur acts across all of space at once, so there is an absolute "now", and a charge feels another's change instantly, a little, everywhere.

This paper uses only route 3's statics: charges at rest and the $1/r$ between them, which is all an atom's ground state needs. Every choice of permeability gives the same statics, so nothing here depends on that choice, on ℓ, on how the lens vacuum's fields move and radiate, or on the absolute now. Those dynamics, of the same lens vacuum, are the subject of a later paper.

4.4 What is declared with it. Electrons are spin-½ fermions, two to an orbital. That is stated, not derived: in our world it follows from relativity and spin together, and this universe has given up relativity for the force. Nuclei are point charges $+Z$, stable for every Z to 140 (declared: nuclear physics in four dimensions is another paper). The fine-structure constant is small, so atoms are solved without relativity (section 12). No other long-range field acts on charges.

4.5 Is matter stable? In ours it is a theorem that N atoms have an energy proportional to N (Dyson and Lenard 1967; Lieb and Thirring 1975), and the proofs lean on the shell theorem, which fails here. So we give evidence, not a proof. Atoms

don't collapse. Thomas–Fermi scaling gives total energies growing as $Z^{3-2/D}$, $Z^{7/3}$ in ours and $Z^{5/2}$ in four dimensions (Kventsel and Katriel 1981), and the solved table follows it, with a fitted exponent of 2.527 over $Z = 10$–140 (ours: 2.387 over 10–36; both a little above the asymptotic value, as finite-Z corrections make them). Many atoms don't run away either. Every force between neutral atoms here (the permanent $-3Q_AQ_B/64R^5$ of section 11, dispersion's R^{-6}) falls faster than R^{-4}, so summed over four-dimensional space each atom's share is finite. This is argued, not proved, and the paper says so.

Part II · The table

5 · Methods

5.1 The code. Everything in this paper is computed by code written for it: JavaScript with no outside libraries, run under Node.js, and the same files run in a browser (four.mino.mobi/atom). The atom is `atom/js/atom.js`, with the shell kernel in `kernel.js`. One electron in any law is `papers/p1/laws.js`, and the terms of open subshells are `atom/tools/hund.mjs` and `termtable.mjs`. Nothing is taken from a quantum-chemistry package. Two independent codes check it (section 6.2): `atom/js/gauss.js`, Hartree–Fock in a Gaussian basis (Boys 1950) for any D, with the integrals of McMurchie and Davidson (1978), and in ours PySCF (Sun et al. 2018, 2020). Every number quoted is read from the code's output by the paper's build (appendix E).

5.2 The law inside an atom. An atom here is a point nucleus of charge Z and Z electrons, non-relativistic, with every pair of charges interacting through the pinned potential q_1q_2/r in four spatial dimensions. The same law acts between an electron and the nucleus and between two electrons; nothing in the method borrows Gauss's law. Atomic units throughout (hartree, bohr).

Each electron moves in the field of the nucleus and of the other electrons' clouds, averaged over directions, so the problem is radial. In D dimensions a wavefunction $\psi = r^{-(D-1)/2}\,u(r)\,Y$, with Y a harmonic of degree l on the $(D-1)$-sphere, has a radial function u that obeys

$$-\tfrac{1}{2}u'' + \left[\frac{L(L+1)}{2r^2} + V(r)\right]u = \varepsilon u, \qquad L = l + \frac{D-3}{2},$$

so four dimensions differ from ours by the half-integer shift of L ($L = l + \frac{1}{2}$) and by the degeneracies: a subshell of angular momentum l holds $2(2l+1)$ electrons in ours and $2(l+1)^2$ in four dimensions. With $V = -Z/r$ the levels are $-Z^2/2(n + (D-3)/2)^2$, so 4D hydrogen's ground state is $-2/9$ hartree; the solver gives -0.22222 (section 6.1).

5.3 The clouds' potential. A spherical shell of charge at radius s, felt at radius r, gives in ours $1/\max(r,s)$ (the shell theorem). In four dimensions under $1/r$ it gives $\kappa(t)/\max(r,s)$, $t = \min/\max$, with κ the $1/r$ kernel averaged over a 3-sphere,

$$\kappa(t) = \frac{2}{\pi}\int_0^\pi \frac{\sin^2\theta\,d\theta}{\sqrt{1+t^2-2t\cos\theta}},$$

which falls from $\kappa(0) = 1$ to $\kappa(1) = 8/3\pi = 0.848826$ (appendix A; Simpson's rule on 400 intervals, then a table of 2001 points with linear interpolation). Every electron–electron term in the self-consistent field, its energy and the ionized atom's goes through this kernel. That is where the missing shell theorem enters the atom: an inner cloud screens the nucleus from an outer electron only partly.

5.4 Exchange. Local exchange from the uniform electron gas of the same dimension and the same law, $\varepsilon_x(\rho) = -A_D\,\rho^{1/D}$ per electron for an electron density ρ, with $A_3 = \frac{3}{4}(3/\pi)^{1/3} = 0.738559$ and $A_4 = 16/15\sqrt{\pi} = 0.601802$, as in the general-$D$ formulas of Loos and Gill (2016) for $1/r$ jellium (appendix B). Spins are polarized by Hund's rule (a subshell fills one spin first), and each electron's own share is removed from both its Hartree and its exchange potential: the Hartree term by its

own orbital's cloud, the exchange term by the fully polarized exchange of that orbital alone, in the manner of the self-interaction correction of Perdew and Zunger (1981). There is no correlation term.

5.5 Solving one configuration. The radial equation is solved on a logarithmic grid of 700 points from $r_0 = 10^{-5}$ to 150 bohr (step $h = 0.02364$ in $\ln r$) by Numerov's method on $y = u/\sqrt{r}$, with each level found by Sturm bisection on the node count of the outward solution (90 halvings), the outward integration stopped where $h^2 f/12 > \frac{1}{2}$ (for $y'' = f y$) so that Numerov cannot fake nodes in the forbidden region, and the orbital matched to an inward solution at the turning point.

For a fixed configuration (occupations of each subshell, every orbital of a subshell sharing one radial function) the field is iterated to self-consistency: each orbital solved in the potential of the nucleus, the others' clouds and exchange; the new clouds mixed into the old at 0.4; up to 80 iterations, stopping when the total energy changes by less than 10^{-7} hartree between iterations.

5.6 Is the stop tight enough? A stop on the energy can leave the far density less converged than the energy is; the plane-wave work met exactly that in its pseudopotentials' all-electron atom, where exchange carried an unconverged tail into the potential. So 19 atoms across every row of both worlds were re-solved in their baked configurations and then driven on from that field to a stop of 10^{-12} hartree (appendix C, `audit-scf.mjs`). Total energies and first ionization energies moved by at most 2.7×10^{-7} and 2.8×10^{-7} hartree, the outermost orbital energy by 1.7×10^{-6}, and $Q = \sum \langle r^2 \rangle$ (the far pull's, and the forces between atoms') by 1.9×10^{-5} of itself; the baked $\langle r^2 \rangle$ agree with the tight ones to 7.0×10^{-5}. The density beyond about 15 bohr is not converged relatively, but it is noise there: off by large factors only where it is 10^{-13} to 10^{-17} electrons per bohr, and converged to 10^{-6} where an atom has a loosely held s electron that puts real charge out that far. Nothing the paper quotes depends on it; a calculation that builds a potential from the far density through exchange must converge the density pointwise, as the pseudopotentials now do.

5.7 Is the grid fine enough? 11 atoms from every row of both worlds were re-solved in their baked configurations on six other grids, changing one of the number of points (500, 1000), the inner end (10^{-4}, 10^{-6} bohr) and the outer end (100, 250 bohr) at a time (appendix C, `convergence.mjs`). First ionization energies moved by at most 1.4×10^{-4} hartree on any of them. Total energies moved by at most 6.7×10^{-2} hartree, 2.4×10^{-5} of themselves, the largest for our own krypton, whose 1s sits deeper than any four-dimensional atom's and is the grid's hardest case. The paper quotes ionization energies and energy differences, not total energies.

5.8 The ground configuration. For each Z the ground configuration is searched, not assumed. The search starts from the hydrogenic filling (subshells in order of n, then l), solves it, and refills by the orbital energies of every subshell, occupied or not, in the field it has just found, up to 6 rounds or until the filling stops changing. It then tries moving one or two electrons between the open subshells, the two highest filled ones and the two lowest empty ones, solving each candidate from the current field. A candidate counts only if its field settles: an unsettled field can report an energy far too low, since with exchange a barely bound orbital can drift for hundreds of iterations. The lowest settled energy is the ground state.

For 7 elements of the 4D table (88, 101–103 and 105–107) the first search landed on an unsettled field. They were searched again seeded from both neighbours' configurations with one or two electrons added or taken, each seed solved from scratch, and the lowest settled one kept.

The first ionization energy is ΔSCF, a difference of two self-consistent energies: the ion's own ground state with an electron taken from whichever of the 3 least-bound occupied subshells leaves it lowest, relaxed from the atom's field, minus the atom's energy. Koopmans' orbital energies are not used.

The table is 140 elements in four dimensions and 36 in ours, baked once (on GitHub's runners past $Z \approx 80$) into a single generated file, which a selftest re-solves in sample on every change.

5.9 The terms of open subshells. The search above gives every open subshell Hund spins. Section 7 finds where that's wrong, and the table is corrected for it. Each d- and f-block element is searched again, seeded as the repair pass seeds, and every settled candidate's energy gets its open subshells' term correction: the lowest term less the lowest maximum-spin term. That comes from the subshell's own repulsion on that candidate's own orbital (`atom/tools/termtable.mjs`). It is zero wherever Hund's first rule holds. The ionization is corrected the same way on both sides. Fillings whose spin blocks are too large to solve per candidate take the survey's verdict (section 7.2), which for them is that the rule holds.

5.10 The counterfactual. To separate what the table owes to the law from what it owes to the geometry, every 4D element is solved a second time with the shell theorem forced on: the clouds' potential taken as $1/\max(r, s)$ (our kernel) while everything else, the 4D kinetic operator, the degeneracies, exchange, the search, stays as it was. Each element's search is seeded with the real table's configuration and its neighbours' ± one electron, so the counterfactual isn't a weaker search; and the real law is re-solved in each counterfactual configuration, to check that the real table's configuration is still the lower one under the law. Where no candidate's field settled, a second, wider search started from every configuration in reach (the real table's for the element and its neighbours ± one electron, the unsettled filling, and the counterfactual's own neighbours ± one), each solved from scratch with the clouds mixed at 0.15 for up to 1500 iterations. A counterfactual atom counts as settled only if its field converged and its first ionization energy is positive (a negative one means an electron would rather leave: the search missed a lower configuration). By that rule 112 of 140 settle, every atom up to 88; the rest (89–116) are row 6's f block and the first elements after it.

5.11 One electron, any law. The arguments of section 2 use a separate solver for one electron in any central potential (`laws.js`): the same radial equation and Numerov–Sturm method on a grid whose inner end can be moved, which is what tests a fall to the centre. For $V = -a/r^2$ it finds no level below $a = \frac{1}{2}$ on any grid and, above it, a lowest level that scales as $1/r_0^2$ (section 2.1); for $V = -1/r^n$ it gives the splittings within each shell (section 3.1). Its check is 4D hydrogen: −0.22222222 against −2/9.

5.12 Checks. Every method above has a known-answer test in the selftest, run on every change: hydrogen in both worlds (block 1), the radial solver (2), the kernel against direct integration (3), exchange against the electron-gas constants (4, 18), the ground search (5, 7), two-electron atoms against an independent Gaussian Hartree–Fock code in four dimensions and MP2 against PySCF in ours (17, 43), our table against measured values (6: 32 of 36 configurations; ionization to a 4.3 % median error), and this paper's own claims recomputed from the bake (67).

6 · Checks against what is known

6.1 Hydrogen. One electron needs no search and no exchange, and four-dimensional hydrogen has an exact answer: $-Z^2/2(n + \frac{1}{2})^2$ hartree, so −2/9 for the ground state. The solver gives −0.22222.

6.2 Two electrons. Helium-like atoms in four dimensions are checked against an independent code, Hartree–Fock in a Gaussian basis written for any dimension (`gauss.js`), and the same atoms in ours against PySCF at the MP2 level (selftest blocks 17 and 43). The two codes share no part of the radial solver.

6.3 Our own table. The same solver, the same law (in ours 1/r is Gauss's) and the same search, run in three dimensions, gives 32 of 36 of our measured ground configurations. The four it misses, titanium, vanadium, cobalt and nickel, each take one d electron too many against 4s, the known lean of local exchange toward d. The misses have one cause. Moving an electron from 4s into 3d comes out too cheap in every 3d atom we can compare (eV, the solver against measured (Kramida et al. 2026): Sc 0.14 against 1.43, Ti −0.89 against 0.81, Fe 0.51 against 0.86, Co −0.35 against 0.43, Ni −1.16 against 0.03), short by 0.35–1.70 eV and a mean 1.06, always in d's favour. That is local exchange without correlation. Resolving every open subshell's whole term structure doesn't remove it. With that correction (the lowest term less the average of the

maximum-spin arrangements, which is what a spherically averaged field stands for), the bias stays at 1.07 eV and the configurations get worse, 26 of 32 against 28 of 32. So the paper corrects only Hund's first rule (section 7), the one thing a spin-polarized averaged field cannot represent. Its first ionization energies are off by a median 4.3 % and at most 16.2 % (figure A2). That is the accuracy to expect of the 4D table: a method that gets our transition metals mostly right and our ionizations to a few percent, not a spectroscopic one.

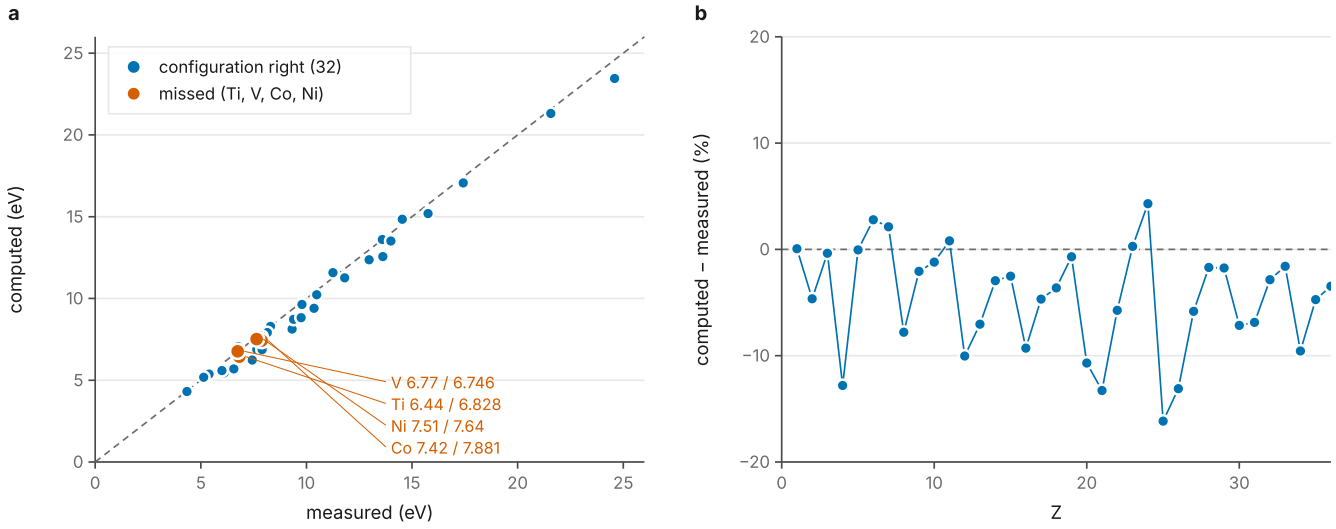


Figure A2. The solver in our three dimensions. (a) Computed against measured first ionization energies (NIST), with the four elements whose ground configuration it misses (Ti, V, Co, Ni: one d electron too many against 4s, the known lean of local exchange). (b) The percentage error against Z.

6.4 Ions. Each ion of ours searched for its own ground state, rather than made by taking one electron from the atom's configuration, changes no first ionization. The same search for anions gives our electron affinities where the extra electron is bound by the field and exchange: the p-block acceptors (C 1.32 against 1.262, Si 1.30 against 1.39, Ge 1.25 against 1.233, Al 0.40 against 0.433, F 2.80 against 3.401, Cl 3.15 against 3.613, O 0.71 against 1.461 eV, measured second). It also finds every anion that should be unbound to be unbound: the noble gases, beryllium, magnesium and nitrogen. It fails where correlation does the binding (H -0.33 against 0.754, Li -0.08 against 0.618, Na -0.02 against 0.548, P -0.10 against 0.746). In four dimensions, then, an affinity above about 0.7 eV is to be believed and a smaller one is not (the measured values are from Rienstra-Kiracofe et al. (2002)).

6.5 Numbers. Tightening the solver's stop or changing its grid moves no ionization energy by a millihartree (section 5 and appendix C).

7 · Hund's first rule in four dimensions

The solver gives each open subshell the most parallel spins it can hold. That is Hund's first rule, and in ours it is the known answer for the ground terms of free atoms. In four dimensions it is an assumption, and for some fillings it is wrong.

7.1 How the terms are found. For each open subshell of each ground configuration, its orbitals are the degree-l harmonics on the 3-sphere, $(l+1)^2$ of them (4 for p, 9 for d, 16 for f). The repulsion between two of its electrons is the law's $1/|x-y|$, projected exactly onto the harmonics of degree 0 to $2l$, with the radial parts integrated over the atom's own orbital. Every arrangement of the subshell's electrons with a given M_S is set up and the lowest energy found (Lanczos, matrix-free; a 4D d^9 block has 15 876 arrangements). A term of spin S appears in every block with $M_S \le S$, so the ground term's spin is the

largest M_S whose block still reaches the lowest energy. In ours this reproduces Racah's term separations for d^2 and d^3 to the wavenumber, and the known ground terms of Cr^{3+}, Mn^{2+}, Pr^{3+} and Gd^{3+}. Over all 23 open subshells of our table, maximum spin is lowest, as it should be.

7.2 Where it fails. In four dimensions all 36 open p subshells of the table keep the rule, and so do the d fillings d^1, d^3–d^{12}, d^{14}, d^{15}, d^{17}. The two exceptions are d^2 and its mirror d^{16}, in all three d rows: element 26 ($3d^2$, 0.40 eV), element 39 ($3d^{16}$, 0.77 eV), element 54 ($4d^2$, 0.30 eV), element 66 ($4d^{16}$, 0.58 eV), element 114 ($5d^2$, 0.36 eV), element 126 ($5d^{16}$, 0.63 eV). In each the ground term is a spin singlet of ten states, and the triplet the solver assumed lies 0.30–0.77 eV above it. In the f block $4f^3$ (element 83) fails too, and so does its mirror $4f^{29}$ (element 108), three short of a full shell. Both have a ground term of spin ½, 0.15 and 0.26 eV below the quartet. Every other f filling keeps the rule. For f^2, f^4, f^5, f^{28}, f^{30}, f^{31} every spin was checked; for f^6–f^{25} only the highest two or three, because the lower-spin blocks run to 10^6–10^8 arrangements. There the result is a bound: no lower term among the spins that could be run. Two fillings (elements 102 and 106) didn't finish in the runner's time.

7.3 Why it fails. It isn't the law. On element 26's own orbital Gauss's $1/r^2$ gives the same order, with the singlet 0.82 eV below the triplet, against 0.40 eV under $1/r$; the pinned law makes the failure smaller, not larger. The cause is the shell itself. Four-dimensional d orbitals form the representation (1,1) of SO(4) ≅ SU(2) × SU(2)/$\mathbb{Z}_2$. Two electrons in them make spatially symmetric states (2,2) ⊕ (2,0) ⊕ (0,2) ⊕ (1,1) ⊕ (0,0), all spin singlets (25, 10, 9 and 1 states), and antisymmetric ones (2,1) ⊕ (1,2) ⊕ (1,0) ⊕ (0,1), triplets (30 and 6). The singlet that comes lowest is the ten-state (2,0) ⊕ (0,2). For two electrons in a d subshell each term's energy is exactly $F^0 + a_2F^2 + a_4F^4$. The F^n are the radial parts of the repulsion and depend on the orbital. The $a_n = \langle C_n(\cos\gamma)\rangle$ over the term (γ is the angle between the two electrons seen from the nucleus) depend only on the term. a_2 measures how much the term lets the electrons line up along a common axis. The ten-state singlet holds them nearest right angles, $\langle \cos^2\gamma\rangle = 0.125$, half of random (0.250), where the best triplet reaches 0.188. It lies below every triplet whenever $F^4/F^2 < 5/3$. Element 26's orbital has $F^4/F^2 = 0.39$ under the law and 0.65 under Gauss's, so the rule breaks either way. In ours the triplet ^{3}F is the term that keeps the electrons nearest right angles (0.225, against ^{1}D's 0.292 and random's 0.333), and it is the lowest for every value of F^4/F^2. Titanium's d^2 has ^{3}F lowest and its first singlet 1.25 eV up. Pauli keeps same-spin electrons apart, which is the usual reason for Hund's rule; four-dimensional space gives paired spins a way to stay apart that is better still. In SO(4) terms, every rotation splits into a left and a right half, and a d orbital carries one unit of each. The singlet adds the two electrons' left halves and cancels their right ones, or the other way round. Three-dimensional rotations don't split, so ours has no such state. An interactive version is at four.mino.mobi/atom/hund.html.

7.4 What it does to the table. Where the rule fails, the solver's energy for that configuration is the maximum-spin state's, too high by the gap. The table in section 8 corrects that. Every d- and f-block element (92 of them) was searched again, with the neighbours' configurations as extra seeds (49–65 settled candidates each). Every candidate got its open subshells' gaps added, and the candidates were ranked again, with and without the correction, so that a change from the wider search is told apart from one from the terms. **The terms change no ground configuration.** They lower the eight Hund-breaking atoms' energies, and they move first ionizations in pairs. An atom whose own ground term gains the gap holds its electron harder: 54 (6.41 → 6.71), 66 (18.82 → 19.40), 114 (6.92 → 7.27), 126 (24.92 → 25.55) eV. The next element, whose ion lands on the broken filling, gives one up more easily: 55 (8.28 → 7.91), 67 (20.56 → 19.93), 115 (9.28 → 8.83), 127 (27.23 → 26.56) eV. That is 0.30–0.67 eV either way. The wider search found one configuration the bake had missed. Element 82 is $4f^1\,5d^1\,6s^2$, 0.36 eV below the bake's $4f^2\,6s^2$, which is our cerium's kind; its ionization goes 7.03 → 7.39 eV. The table that follows is the corrected one (`data/table4.csv`). The Hund-spin table it replaces is supplement S1 (`data/table4-hundspin.csv`). How far to trust each configuration follows from section 6.3. Take a bias of about a volt toward d and f: a

ground configuration with a competitor holding fewer d and f electrons within a volt of it could be the other way round. 11 of the 92 d- and f-block elements have one: 30 ($3d^6\ 4s^2$, 0.55 eV up), 37 ($3d^{13}\ 4s^2$, 0.55 eV up), 53 ($5s^2\ 5p^1$, 0.01 eV up), 58 ($4d^6\ 5s^2$, 0.20 eV up), 61 ($4d^9\ 5s^2$, 0.25 eV up), 64 ($4d^{13}\ 5s^1$, 0.95 eV up), 107 ($5p^8\ 6s^2$, 0.20 eV up), 108 ($5p^8\ 6s^2$, 0.79 eV up), 109 ($5p^8\ 6s^2$, 0.57 eV up), 122 ($5d^{10}\ 6s^2$, 0.54 eV up), 124 ($5d^{13}\ 6s^1$, 0.55 eV up).

8 · The table

8.1 Rows and noble gases. The table's rows hold 2, 10, 10, 28, 28, 60 elements (and 2 of the next by element 140), and its noble gases are elements 2, 12, 22, 50, 78, 138, each a peak of the first ionization energy (figures 2 and 3). Those are the rows the generalized Madelung rule of Négadi and Kibler (1996) gives when it is applied to four dimensions, which they stated for any dimension and worked out for two. To our knowledge this is the first self-consistent table that confirms them. The rule is a filling order. It builds the table's skeleton of rows and blocks, which is how figure 2 is drawn. Like Madelung's rule in ours, it doesn't promise each atom's ground configuration, and ours has exceptions to it, chromium and copper the first of about twenty. Read that way, 103 of the 140 ground configurations are exactly the rule's. Each of the other 37 moves one or two electrons from one subshell to another: 34 from the outer s into the d or f subshell below it (10 of them two electrons), as our chromium, copper and palladium do, and the other 3 between other pairs: 81 (4f → 5d), 82 (4f → 5d) and 113 (5d → 6p). The solver finds more of these than there are. Over our first 36 elements it departs from the rule 6 times (Ti, V, Cr, Co, Ni, Cu), where the measured configurations depart 2 times (Cr and Cu). The reason is its lean toward d (section 6.3), so the 4D count is likely too high, and these departures, not the rows, are where the table is least sure. Part III asks how much of the table the law decides.

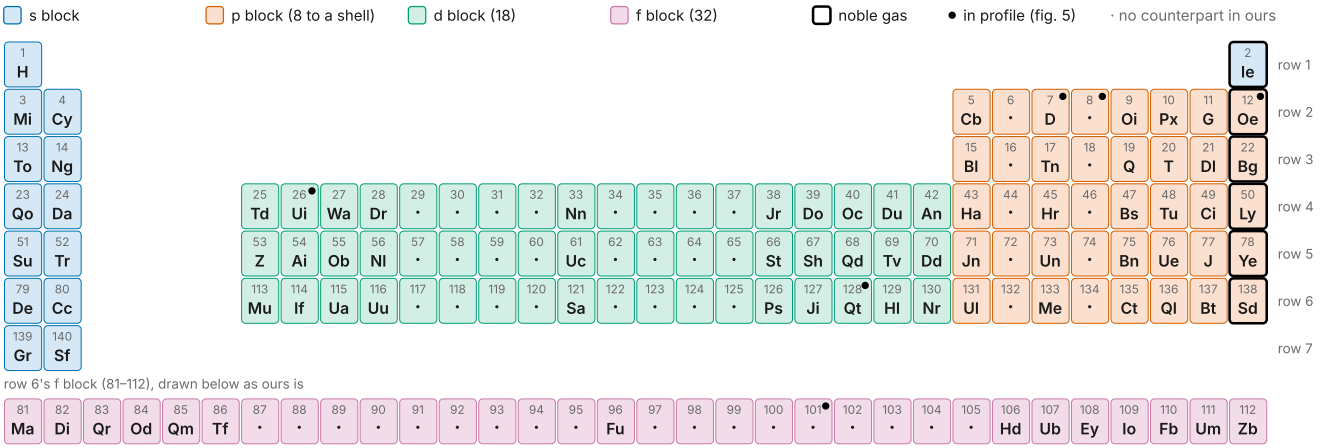


Figure 2. The periodic table of four dimensions, Z = 1 to 140, each atom solved self-consistently under the pinned 1/r. Rows close at the noble gases 2, 12, 22, 50, 78 and 138, and hold 2, 10, 10, 28, 28 and 60 elements, as Négadi and Kibler's generalized Madelung rule gives when applied to four dimensions. A subshell holds $2(l + 1)^2$ electrons, so the p block is 8 wide, the d block 18 and row 6's f block 32 (drawn below, as ours is). An element takes our element's name with its first letter moved on where its place answers to one of ours; the rest (·) have no counterpart. Dots: the elements in figure 4. Hover a cell for its configuration and ionization.

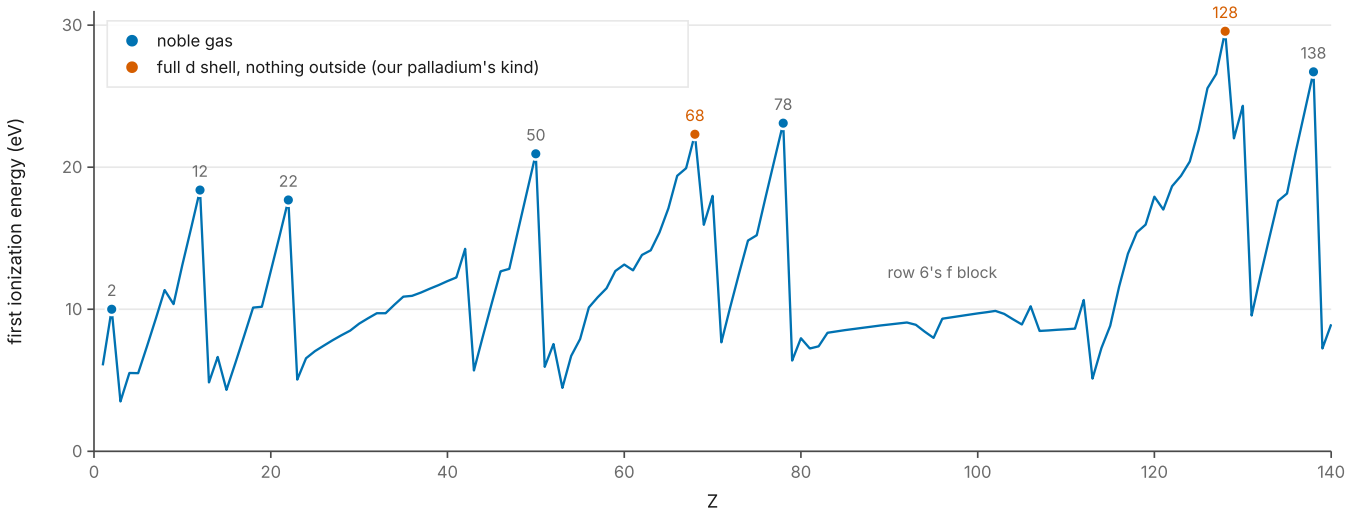


Figure 3. First ionization energy against Z across the four-dimensional table. The noble gases close their rows, but the hardest-held electron isn't a noble gas's: element 128, a full 18-electron d shell with nothing outside it (our palladium's kind), holds its outermost electron at 29.6 eV against its row's noble gas at 26.7; element 68, the same kind a row up, comes within a volt of its row's. In ours palladium holds far less hard than xenon. Across row 6's 32-wide f block (81–112) the binding barely moves.

8.2 The hardest-held electron isn't a noble gas's. Element 128 has an 18-electron d shell, full, with nothing outside it. It holds its outermost electron at 29.56 eV, harder than its row's noble gas 138 (26.71 eV) and harder than any other atom in the table. Element 68, the same kind a row up, comes within a volt of its noble gas 78 (22.32 eV against 23.10). Ours goes the other way: palladium's full $4d^{10}$ gives up an electron at 8.3 eV, xenon at 12.1 (Sansonetti and Martin 2005). Searching each ion for its own ground state leaves element 128's ionization where it was. Seven other ions do rearrange, and their ionizations drop: 36 (11.42 → 10.94), 93 (9.14 → 8.90), 94 (9.20 → 8.43), 95 (9.27 → 7.99), 103 (9.96 → 9.67), 104 (10.05 → 9.29), 105 (10.13 → 8.92) eV. The main table carries those. Section 9 shows the law does it.

8.3 Inside the rows. Figure 4 draws six atoms in profile: their radial densities, and what each one's outermost orbital looks like on the 3-sphere (figure 5). The same two pictures for every element, from the same solver, are on the interactive table, where picking an element draws them and any of its subshells can be cut by any of the six planes of four-dimensional space (four.mino.mobi/table; a link ending `#Z` opens on element Z). Where the filling departs from the simple order, and how the ionization energy and the radius run with Z, are in the data files (table4.csv).

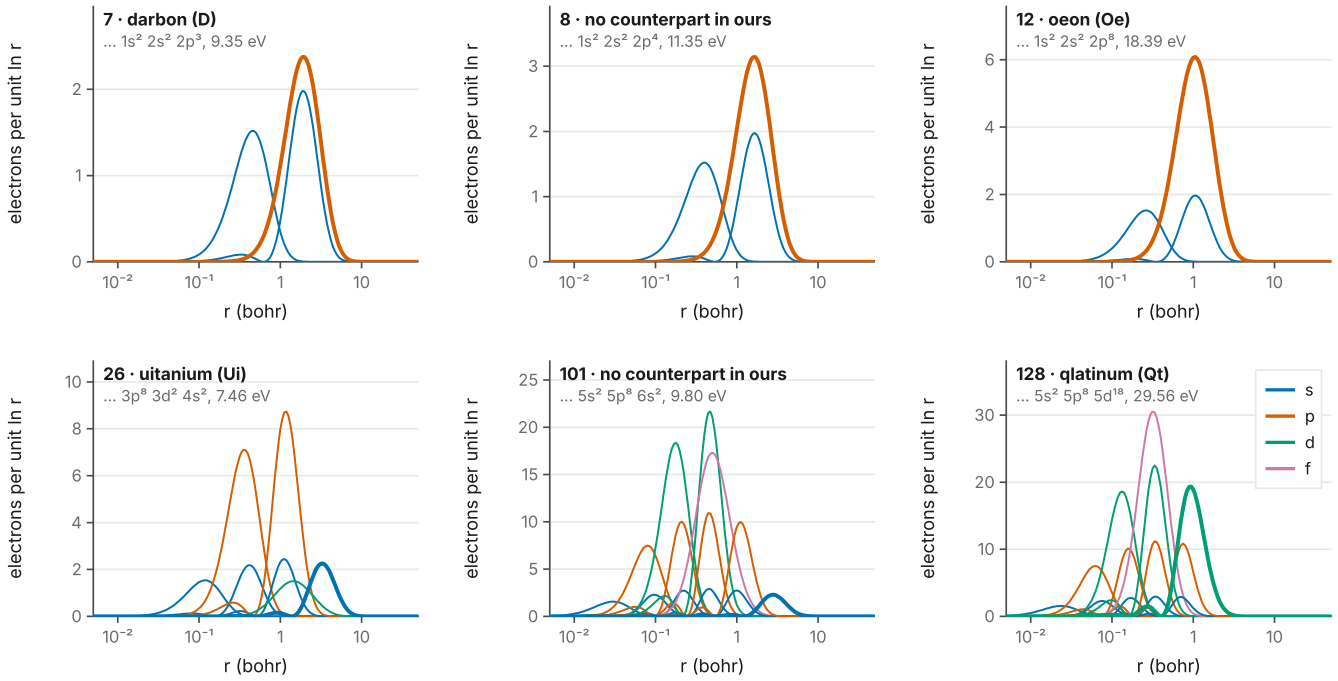


Figure 4. Six four-dimensional atoms in profile: each subshell's electrons per unit ln r against distance, from the solved atoms; the area under a curve is its electron count, and the outermost subshell is drawn thick. Darbon (7), our carbon's place, five electrons of a ten-electron shell; element 8, which answers to nothing of ours; oeon (12), the first noble gas past helium, its p shell holding eight; uitanium (26), where the d block starts; element 101, 21 electrons into an f shell that holds 32; and element 128, the hardest-held electron in the table. Every element's profile: four.mino.mobi/table/#Z.

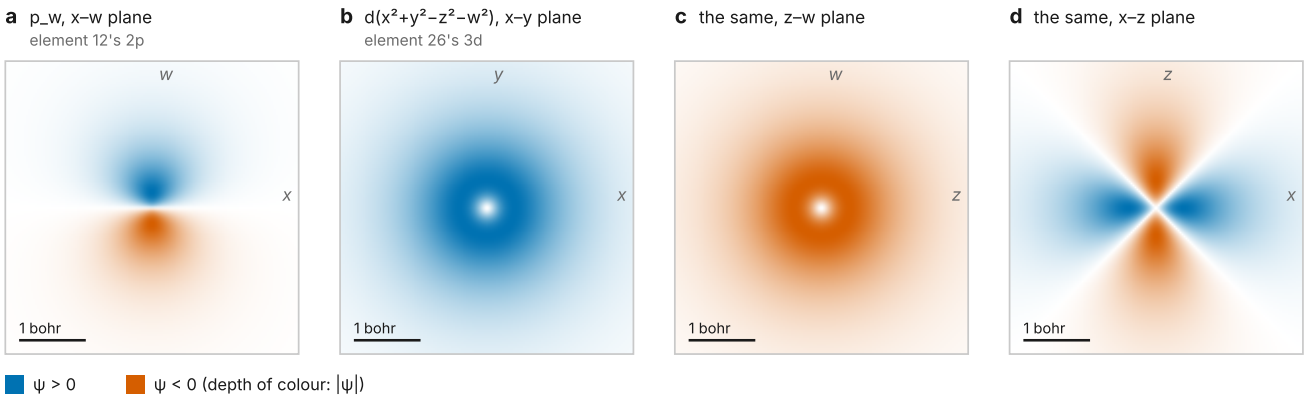


Figure 5. Orbitals four dimensions has and ours doesn't, cut through the nucleus by a plane, on the solved atoms' own radial functions. (a) The fourth p orbital, p_w, in the x–w plane: a dumbbell along w, so any three-dimensional slice through the nucleus misses it entirely. (b–d) One of the nine 4D d orbitals, $x^2 + y^2 - z^2 - w^2$, in three planes: positive all the way round the x–y plane, negative all the way round the z–w plane, and a four-leaf clover in a plane that mixes them. The x–y and z–w planes are completely perpendicular and meet only at the nucleus; nothing in three dimensions is positive round one plane and negative round another. Any element's orbitals, in any plane: four.mino.mobi/table/#Z; hydrogen's exact ones, turned live: kata.mino.mobi/orbital.

Part III · What the law does

9 · The table again, with the shell theorem forced on

Part I chose the law; Part II solved the table under it. To see which of the table's features the law decides, every 4D element was solved a second time with one thing changed: the clouds' potential taken as if the shell theorem held (our kernel, $1/\max(r, s)$), and everything else, the four-dimensional kinetic energy, the degeneracies, exchange, the search, left as it was (section 5). Of the 140 elements, 112 settle, every one up to element 88. The rest, elements 89–116, row 6's f block and the first elements after it, have no settled ground state under the shell theorem from any starting configuration tried. They are left out, so this part's statements about the rows hold through row 5.

9.1 The rows are the geometry's. With the shell theorem forced on, the first 24 elements keep every configuration, and the noble gases close the same rows at elements 2, 12, 22, 50, 78, 138 (figure 6). The lengths of the rows, 2, 10, 10, 28, 28, come from four-dimensional space's degeneracies, $2(l+1)^2$ to a subshell. They don't come from the law between charges, so long as that law keeps a shell together (section 3.1).

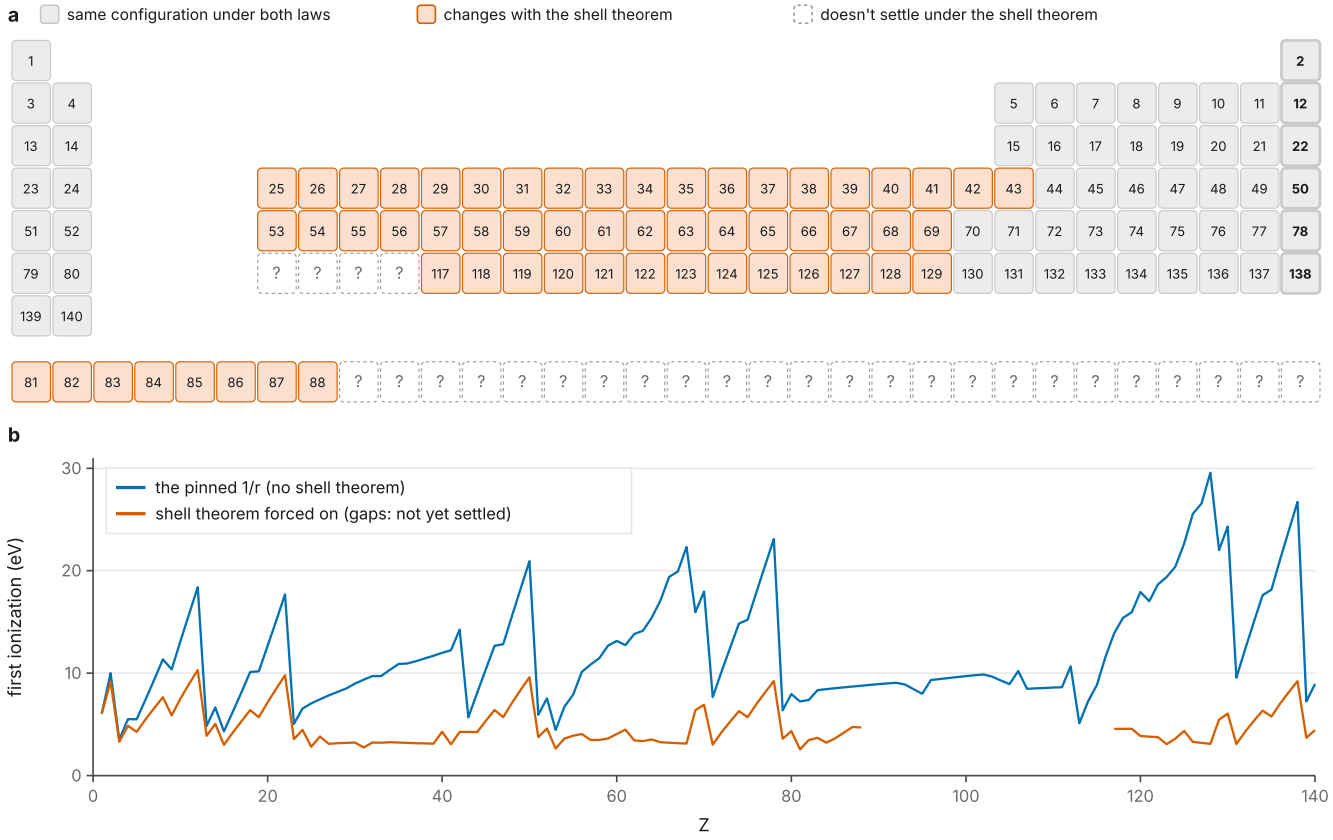


Figure 6. What the law does. Every 4D atom solved a second time with the shell theorem forced on (the clouds' pull as if each sat at the centre), everything else held. (a) The table: grey, the same ground configuration under both laws; orange, changed; ?, no settled ground state under the shell theorem (row 6's f block, 89–116, after a second, wider search). Every atom up to 88 settles. The first 24 elements and all six noble gases are unchanged: the rows are the geometry's, at least through row 5. Every change starts at the first d element: without the law, p beats d inside each row. (b) First ionization under both: the law holds outer electrons a median 2.5 times harder, and element 128 nearly ten times (29.6 eV against 3.1); with the shell theorem the noble gases hold hardest, as ours do.

9.2 What fills inside the rows is the law's. Of the settled atoms, 57 change configuration, and the first is element 25, the first d element. Under the shell theorem p beats d. Element 25 takes $4s^2\,4p^1$ where the law gives $3d^1\,4s^2$, and the change

runs on through the d and f blocks. In every changed atom the law's own configuration is still the lower one when solved under the law, so the difference is the law's, not a weaker search.

10 · Partial screening

In ours an outer electron sees the nucleus screened by every inner electron whole: the shell theorem makes an inner cloud act as its charge at the centre. In four dimensions an inner cloud screens only partly, because its pull at radius r is $\kappa(t)/r$ of a point charge's with $\kappa < 1$ (section 4.2). The outer electrons see more of the nucleus.

10.1 How much harder. Across the 110 atoms past helium that settle under both, the law holds the outermost electron a median 2.54 times as hard as the shell theorem would, from 1.06 to 9.55 times. Among the noble gases the ratio grows from 1.09 (helium) to 2.90 (element 138).

10.2 Element 128. The largest ratio is element 128's. Its $5d^{18}$ shell, full with nothing outside it, holds its electron at 29.56 eV under the law and at 3.1 eV under the shell theorem. With the shell theorem the noble gases are again the hardest-held atoms, as ours are. The table's hardest-held electron (section 8.2) is partial screening at its strongest: a full shell whose own cloud hides the nucleus from it least.

10.3 Negative ions. Partial screening holds an extra electron harder too. One electron short of a full p shell (p^7 in four dimensions), atoms bind an extra electron by 3.4, 5.7, 7.8, 10.3, 12.9 eV going down the group, rising with every row, where ours stay level (F 3.401, Cl 3.613, Br 3.364 eV, measured). The largest affinity in the table is 12.9 eV (element 137), and 80 of the 140 atoms bind an extra electron by more than the 0.7 eV section 6.4 trusts. The light noble gases (2, 12, 22) don't hold one at all: their anions lie 7, 14, 12 eV above the atom. The heavier ones come out barely bound (50: 0.05, 78: 0.23, 138: 0.45 eV), too little to call. In ours this method underbinds anions like these, whose extra electron is s.

11 · Neutral atoms aren't silent

Under the shell theorem a neutral atom is invisible from outside its cloud. Here it isn't. A spherical shell of charge q and radius s, felt at a distance R outside it, gives $q\kappa(s/R)/R$ with $\kappa = 1 - t^2/8 - \dots$ (appendix A). Summed over the nucleus and the electrons, the leading terms cancel in a neutral atom, and what remains, for an electron at distance R, is a pull $-Q/8R^3$, with $Q = \sum \langle r^2 \rangle$ over the atom's electrons. The solved noble gases follow it: at 30 bohr the full cloud's potential and the far form agree to 0.22 %. Between two atoms the same failure gives a permanent attraction $-3Q_AQ_B/64R^5$, with no dipole needed, which outranges London's R^{-6}. The papers that follow take it up: noble gases that condense far above where ours do, and molecules held differently.

12 · Limitations

The law's own. The force acts instantly (section 4.3), so only statics are safe; this paper has nothing that moves. Heavy atoms would need relativity, which the law has given up for the force between charges; the table past about element 100 is first-pass for that reason, and the innermost Dirac level of a bare nucleus would dive near Z ≈ 230 for a nucleus of 4–5 fm, as a potential problem, not one met here. Nuclei are declared stable to Z = 140.

The method's. Local exchange and no correlation, which in ours favours d by about a volt (section 6.3); in four dimensions that leaves the configurations section 7.4 lists in doubt. Every subshell's cloud is averaged over the sphere. The terms of open subshells are resolved only to first order, on the solver's orbitals, and only where the rule fails (section 7). The counterfactual table leaves row 6's f block unsettled (section 9).

What isn't claimed. That four-dimensional chemistry looks like ours: the next papers take up bonds, liquids and crystals under the same law.

13 · Conclusion

A world with four large dimensions of space has to choose its law between charges, because Gauss's law gives it no atoms. Pinned at $1/r$, the only power law that keeps a shell together, it has atoms, and they have a periodic table: rows of 2, 10, 10, 28, 28, 60, noble gases at 2, 12, 22, 50, 78 and 138, as the generalized Madelung rule predicts. The rows are the geometry's. Everything that fills inside them from the first d element on is the law's, because in four dimensions $1/r$ isn't harmonic and an inner cloud screens only partly: outer electrons are held about two and a half times harder, the table's hardest-held electron belongs to a full d shell rather than a noble gas, and a neutral atom pulls from afar. And four-dimensional space breaks Hund's first rule for the d^2 and d^{16} fillings and for $4f^3$ and $4f^{29}$, whatever the law.

Appendices

A · The 4D kernel

A thin spherical shell of unit charge and radius s, felt at radius r, gives the potential $\kappa(t)/\max(r,s)$, where $t = \min(r,s)/\max(r,s)$ and κ is the law's $1/|x-y|$ averaged over the shell. On the 3-sphere the average over directions carries the weight $\frac{2}{\pi}\sin^2\theta\,d\theta$, so

$$\kappa(t) = \frac{2}{\pi}\int_0^\pi \frac{\sin^2\theta\,d\theta}{\sqrt{1+t^2-2t\cos\theta}}.$$

In ours the same average, with weight $\frac{1}{2}\sin\theta\,d\theta$, is exactly 1 for every t: the shell theorem. In four dimensions it isn't. The integral has a closed form in the complete elliptic integrals K and E of modulus t,

$$\kappa(t) = \frac{4\,[(1+t^2)\,\mathrm{E}(t) - (1-t^2)\,\mathrm{K}(t)]}{3\pi t^2},$$

which gives $\kappa(1) = 8/3\pi$ (since $\mathrm{E}(1) = 1$), and the series

$$\kappa(t) = 1 - \frac{t^2}{8} - \frac{t^4}{64} - \frac{5t^6}{1024} - \frac{35t^8}{16384} - \dots$$

Each term is t^n times the average of the Legendre polynomial $P_n(\cos\theta)$ over the 3-sphere; the odd ones vanish. The solver evaluates κ by Simpson's rule in θ with 400 intervals, tabulated at 2001 points of t and interpolated. The closed form agrees with that quadrature to 2.7×10^{-15} for t up to 0.9 (ledger `kernelclosed`); nearer 1 the quadrature's own error dominates, a few parts in 10^7.

The series' first correction is the far pull of section 11. A cloud of N electrons around a nucleus $+Z$, seen from a distance R outside it, gives $(Z - N + \sum_i \langle r_i^2\rangle/8R^2 + \dots)/R$. A neutral atom therefore acts on an electron through $-Q/8R^3$ with $Q = \sum\langle r^2\rangle$, and two neutral atoms on each other through $-3Q_AQ_B/64R^5$ (section 11). Figure A1 draws κ, and the potential inside and outside a shell.

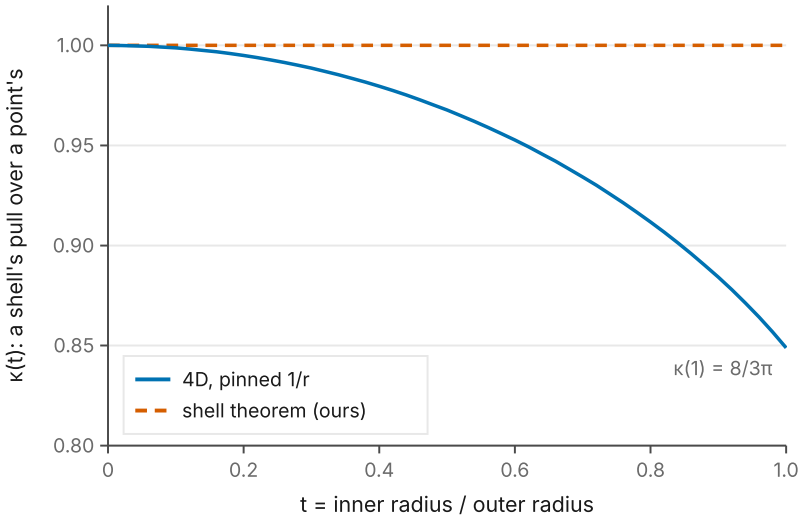


Figure A1. The pull of a thin shell of charge on a point at another radius, over a point charge's at the shell's centre, as κ(t) of the ratio t of the two radii. The shell theorem makes it 1; under the pinned 1/r in four dimensions it falls to 8/3π at the shell itself.

B · The 4D electron gas

The solver's exchange is the local form of the uniform electron gas of the same dimension and the same law. In D dimensions a spin-unpolarized Fermi sea of density ρ has $\rho = 2\,\Omega_D k_F^D/(2\pi)^D$, with Ω_D the volume of the unit ball ($\pi^2/2$ for $D = 4$). Its kinetic energy per volume is $\frac{D}{D+2}\rho\,k_F^2/2$: $\frac{3}{10}(3\pi^2)^{2/3}\rho^{5/3}$ in ours (Thomas–Fermi's 2.8712), $\frac{4\pi}{3}\rho^{3/2}$ in four dimensions. Its exchange energy per volume is $-A_D\,\rho^{1+1/D}$. In ours $A_3 = \frac{3}{4}(3/\pi)^{1/3} = 0.738559$, Dirac's constant. In four dimensions under the pinned $1/r$, with the Fermi sea's density matrix built on the Bessel function J_2 and the integral $\int_0^\infty J_2(x)^2\,x^{-2}\,dx = 4/15\pi$, it is $A_4 = 16/15\sqrt{\pi} = 0.601802$. These agree with Loos and Gill's expressions for the D-dimensional gas (2016). The selftest checks the textbook values in ours and the 4D integral (blocks 4 and 18). The potential each electron feels is $v_x = -(1 + 1/D)\,A_D\,\rho^{1/D}$, spin-polarized as in section 5 (each spin's own density doubled), with each electron's own share taken out.

C · Numerical convergence

The solver's stop. The self-consistent field stops when the total energy changes by less than 10^{-7} hartree between iterations. Re-solving 19 atoms (4D 2, 4D 7, 4D 12, 4D 13, 4D 22, 4D 26, 4D 50, 4D 51, 4D 68, 4D 78, 4D 101, 4D 128, 4D 138, ours 2, ours 10, ours 11, ours 18, ours 26, ours 36) with the stop at 10^{-12} moves no total energy by more than 2.7×10^{-7} hartree and no first ionization by more than 2.8×10^{-7} (ledger `converged`).

The radial grid. The baked grid has 700 points from 10^{-5} to 150 bohr, logarithmic with step 0.02364. 11 atoms (4D 2, 4D 12, 4D 13, 4D 22, 4D 50, 4D 78, 4D 128, 4D 138, ours 10, ours 18, ours 36) were re-solved on six other grids, each changing one parameter (ledger `grid`):

change from the baked grid	largest |ΔE| (hartree)	largest |Δ ionization| (hartree)
N 500	2.0×10^{-2}	1.4×10^{-4}
N 1000	1.0×10^{-2}	7.2×10^{-5}
r_0 10^{-4}	6.7×10^{-2}	3.8×10^{-5}
r_0 10^{-6}	5.4×10^{-3}	4.2×10^{-5}

change from the baked grid	largest |ΔE| (hartree)	largest |Δ ionization| (hartree)
r_max 100	1.0×10^{-3}	6.9×10^{-6}
r_max 250	1.3×10^{-3}	8.9×10^{-6}

The total energies of the heaviest atoms move by up to 6.7×10^{-2} hartree, 2.4×10^{-5} of themselves, with the innermost point. The ionization energies, the differences the paper's chemistry uses, move by at most 1.4×10^{-4} hartree.

D · The law calculations

Section 2's arguments use a separate one-electron solver (`laws.js`), so that the grid's inner end can be moved. It uses the radial equation with $L = l + (D - 3)/2$ on a logarithmic grid of 6000 points, counts the nodes of an outward Numerov solution at a trial energy, and bisects on the count to 10^{-13} relative; a level that falls with the inner end of the grid is a fall to the centre. Its check is 4D hydrogen, −0.22222222 hartree against −2/9.

Gauss's $-\alpha/r^2$. At $\alpha = 0.45$ there is no bound level on any grid. At $\alpha = 0.7$ the lowest level is -5.87×10^3, -5.87×10^5 and -5.87×10^7 hartree with the inner end at 10^{-3}, 10^{-4} and 10^{-5} bohr: $\varepsilon r_0^2 = -0.00587$ and −0.00587, a fall to the centre set by r_0 (ledger `gauss`). The boundary between the two is Hardy's constant $((D-2)/2)^2 = 1$ (Barbatis 2024), which with the kinetic energy $\frac{1}{2}|\nabla\psi|^2$ puts the critical α at $\frac{1}{2}$ (Landau and Lifshitz 1977, sec. 35).

Power laws $-1/r^\eta$. The splitting of 2p from 2s, as a fraction of the shell's binding, is −6.2 % at $\eta = 0.8$, 5×10^{-10} % at $\eta = 1$, +15.4 % at $\eta = 1.2$ and +64.0 % at $\eta = 1.5$. For 3d against 3s it is −9.2 %, +21.9 % and +78.3 % (ledger `uniqueness`). Only $\eta = 1$ keeps a shell together.

E · Reproducing every number

Every number in the text is read by `papers/p1/build.mjs` from one of the files below, and the selftest (block 67) fails if any claim in `ledger.json` stops holding or any generated file is stale. What made each file:

file	made by	where
`atom/js/table.js` (the bake; supplement S1)	`atom/tools/bake.mjs`, then `--repair` for 88, 101–103, 105–107	GitHub's runners, six minutes a shard
`data/termtable.json` (the main table)	`atom/tools/termtable.mjs`, collected by `termtable-collect.mjs`	runner run `hund-f-and-terms`
`data/hund.json`	`atom/tools/hund.mjs survey`, collected by `hund-collect.mjs`	sandbox (p, d, first f) and runner run `hund-f`
`data/hund-law.json`	`papers/p1/hundlaw.mjs`	a minute
`data/promotion3.json`	`termtable.mjs` with `TERM_MODE=full` on ours, `promotion-collect.mjs`	sandbox, minutes
`data/shelltable.json`	`atom/tools/lawtable.mjs shell, repair, bake`	runner runs `lawtable-shell`, `lawtable-repair`
`data/audit-scf.json`, `data/convergence.json`	`audit-scf.mjs`, `convergence.mjs`	runner
`data/profiles.json`	`profiles.mjs`	sandbox
`data/table3.*`, `data/table4.*`, `figdata/`, `figures/`, `ledger.json`,	`build.mjs`	seconds

file	made by	where
`draft/`		
`data/crossref.json` (the references' metadata)	`refs-crossref.mjs`, from each DOI's Crossref record	by hand, when a DOI is added
`draft/*.html`, `draft/paper.pdf`	`page.mjs` (pandoc, with citeproc), `pdf.cjs`	seconds

`papers/p1/reproduce.mjs` re-solves a sample of atoms from the solver and checks them against the paper's data; `--all` re-solves every element. The runner's logs, with each command's exit status, are kept on the repository's `atom4-data` branch under `runs/`. The code is mirrored at a tagged version for citation.

Supplement and data

Supplement S1 is the table with every open subshell given Hund spins (`data/table4-hundspin.csv`). The 32 claims this text rests on, and the data behind them, are in `ledger.json` and `data/`.

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